

Maths

Probability

1. Key concepts in probability theory:

1. Let's say we have two RV X and Y:

1. Joint distribution: $p(X, Y)$ (reads "X and Y")
2. Marginal distribution: $p(X)$ and $p(Y)$
3. Conditional distribution: $p(X|Y)$ and $p(Y|X)$ (reads "X given Y" and "Y given X")
4. Bayes Theorem: $p(X|Y) = \frac{p(X,Y)}{p(Y)} = \frac{p(Y|X)p(X)}{p(Y)}$
 1. Prior: $p(X)$ (what I originally believe about X)
 2. Posterior: $p(X|Y)$ (what I believe about X now that I've seen/observed Y).
5. Independence: Knowing X tells you nothing about Y
 1. $p(X|Y) = p(X)$ and $p(X, Y) = p(X)p(Y)$.

2. The goal of probabilistic modeling is to learn the probability distributions

3. We can usually describe the probability distributions through some **parameters** (θ)

1. Gaussian: mean(μ) and variance(σ^2)
2. Poisson: average rate (λ)
3. Some complicated distribution: can be parametrized by neural networks (θ)

4. The goal now is to learn those parameters given data

5. We call the probability of data given model parameters as **likelihood** $p(x|\theta)$. i.e. "if my parameters are accurate, how likely is the data that I observe".

1. θ is model parameter.
2. For example RV x is binomial, x is the number of times a coin landed heads in N trials.

1.
$$P(x = X|\theta = p) = \binom{N}{x} p^x (1-p)^{N-x} \quad (\text{likelihood})$$

3. if RV x is single variable Gaussian, for modeling a real value, e.g. temperature sensor reading.

1.
$$P(x = X|\theta = (\mu, \sigma^2)) = \frac{1}{\sqrt{2\pi\sigma^2}} e^{-\frac{(x-\mu)^2}{2\sigma^2}} \quad (\text{likelihood})$$

4. Note: Notice that in both cases the RV x ended up in the exponent.

5. Bayes rule:

$$p(\theta|x = D) = \frac{p(x|\theta)p(\theta)}{p(x)}$$

$p(x|\theta)$ is the likelihood, $p(\theta)$ is the prior distribution, $p(\theta|x = D)$ is the posterior, and $p(x)$ is the normalization term.

2. Probabilistic graphical models can only do 2 things [4]:

1. Inference: calculating a probability of some data modelled as RV using the model $\mathcal{M}$:

1. evaluation $P(obs|state)$,
2. decoding $P(state|obs)$

2. Learning model parameters: refers to finding the graphical model $\mathcal{M}$, given some data $\mathcal{D}$.

1. MAP (maximum a posteriori)
2. Maximum likelihood
3. expectation maximization
4. forward-backward algorithm

3. Conditional probability can be computed using:

1. Bayes rule
2. Enumeration

Probabilistic Inference Methods [5]

1. Maximum Likelihood Estimation (MLE)

1. $x^* = \arg \max p(d|x)$.

2. Likelihood: $p(d|x)$
3. x^* is the most probable value of x .
4. $\{x\}$ is a set of possible values of x (the candidates of x).
5. $\arg \max$ to return the value of x that maximizes $p(d|x)$.
6. The weakness of MLE is that it allows impossible candidates, as it treats candidates uniformly.
7. The intuitive meaning of MLE:
 1. Take each possible illness e.g. $x = \text{flu}$.
 2. Verify if it fits to the symptoms $\rightarrow$ probability of x .
 3. Decide the illness based on the highest probability.

2. Maximum A Posteriori (MAP)

$$\begin{aligned}
 1. \quad x^* &= \arg \max p(x|d) \\
 &= \arg \max p(d|x)p(x)
 \end{aligned}$$

. Likelihood:

2. MAP treats the candidates differently: $p(x = \text{flu}) > p(x = \text{cancer})$
3. Main criticism of MAP is how to determine $p(x)$.

3. Full Bayesian Inference

1. $p(x|d) = \frac{p(d|x)p(x)}{p(d)}$. $P(d)$ is intractable to solve.
2. This is the ideal and most robust inference that besides providing a prediction on the value of x , it also provides the uncertainty, or how high/low the probability of the prediction.
3. It's possible because of $p(d)$, the evidence. This will normalize the product of $p(d|x)p(x)$.
4. However to obtain $p(d)$ is analytically intractable, and in discrete, it can be prohibitively expensive.
4. Example: According to our observation, a patient has a set of symptoms: $d : \{\text{stiff neck, coughing, headache, fever}\}$. We also have a set of possible illness: flu, meningitis, infection and cancer.

Lagrange Multiplier [3]

Hungarian Matching [2]

Number Theory

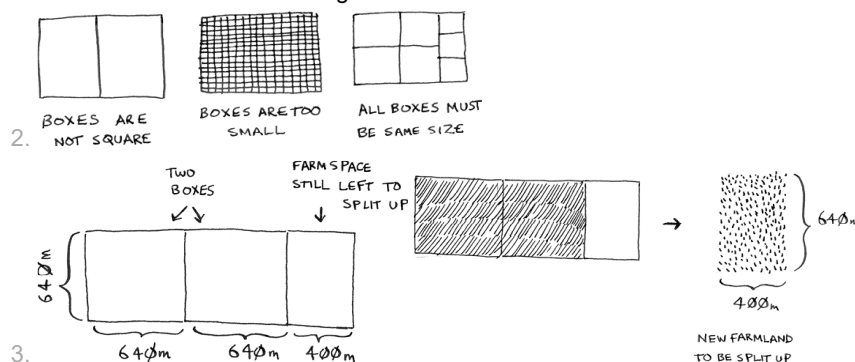
Chinese Remainder Theorem

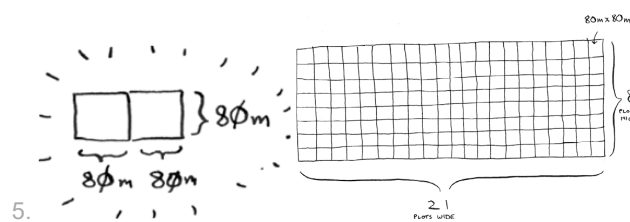
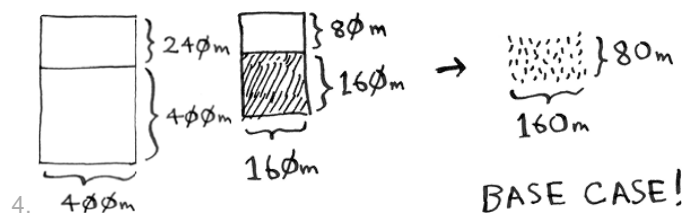
1. a is prime wrt to b is $\gcd(a, b) = 1$, or we write $(a, b) = 1$.

Modulus arithmetic

1. Modulo vs remainder
2. Euclidean algorithm vs extended Euclidean algorithm
3. Euclid's algorithm

1. Suppose we are farmers and want to divide a plot of land of size $1680m \times 640m$ into manageable sizes. One way is to divide the land into squares with the same sizes. We can use divide and conquer (D&C) approach to this problem. D&C is not an algorithm but it is a way of thinking. "If you find the biggest box that will work for this size, that will be the biggest box that will work for the entire farm." The problem becomes equivalent to finding the greatest common denominator of each land segment size.





6. Code:

```
# -*- coding: utf-8 -*-
"""
Created on Sun Sep 13 11:28:10 2026

@author: reina
"""

def gcd(a, b):
    r=a%b
    while r:
        a=b
        b=r
        r=a%b
    return b

if __name__ == '__main__':
    a=1680
    b=640
    res=gcd(a,b)
    print(res)
```

Functions

1. Definition. A function f from a set X to a set Y is a subset f of the product $X \times Y$ such that if $(x, y_1), (x, y_2) \in f$, then $y_1 = y_2$.
2. $X \times Y$ describes how X relates to Y .
3. Instead of writing $(x, y) \in f$, you usually write $f(x) = y$. In ordinary terms, an ordered pair (x, y) is in f means that x is the "input" to f and y is the corresponding "output".
4. The requirement that $(x, y_1), (x, y_2) \in f$ implies $y_1 = y_2$ means that there is a unique output for each input. (It's referred to as the "vertical line test" for a graph to be a function graph).
5. the notation $f : X \rightarrow Y$ means that f is a function from X to Y .
6. X is called the domain, Y is called the codomain. The image (or range) of f is the set of all outputs of the function:

$$\text{im} f = \{y \in Y \mid y = f(x) \text{ for some } x \in X\}$$

7. Note: the domain and codomain are part of the definition of a function.
8. Definition. Let X and Y be sets. A function $f : X \rightarrow Y$ is:
 1. **Injective** if for all $x_1, x_2 \in X$, $f(x_1) = f(x_2)$ implies $x_1 = x_2$.
 2. **Surjective** if for all $y \in Y$, there is an $x \in X$ such that $f(x) = y$.
 3. **Bijjective** if it is injective and surjective.
 4. Intuitively, a function is injective if different inputs give different outputs. The older terminology for "injective" was "one-to-one".
 5. A function is surjective if every element of the codomain (the "target set") is an output of the function. The older terminology for "surjective" was "onto".
 6. A function is bijective if the elements of the domain and the elements of the codomain are "paired up". The older terminology for "bijective" was "one-to-one correspondence".
 7. Note: These are useful pictures to keep in mind, but don't confuse them with the definitions

AM, GM [8]

1. Arithmetic mean and the Geometric mean
 1. Arithmetic mean

- ## 2. Geometric mean

- 3. The square is larger than all other rectangles with the same perimeter**

-

4. **The geometric mean of two numbers is always less than their arithmetic mean.** The two are equal only if x and y are equal.

5. The geometric mean of n positive numbers is never larger than the arithmetic mean, $GM \leq AM$.

1. Proof by Cauchy:

2. Arithmetic mean and the root mean square.

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